

Market Entry (Cavusgil 13–15)

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Learning objectives

- Frame the two core **market-entry decisions: which markets** to enter and **which mode** to use.
- Compare entry modes on **control, risk, commitment and flexibility** — the export → intermediate → hierarchical ladder.
- Understand **exporting** and its mechanics (intermediaries, Incoterms, payment, countertrade).
- Understand **contractual / intermediate** modes — licensing, franchising, alliances — and how to protect intellectual property.
- Understand **FDI and hierarchical** modes — motives, greenfield vs. M&A, ownership and integration.
- Connect entry to **global sourcing, supply chains** and, when needed, **exit**.

Opening activity: get an Austrian SME abroad

IN-CLASS OPENER • 12 MINUTES • PAIRS — INSTINCT FIRST, FRAMEWORK LATER

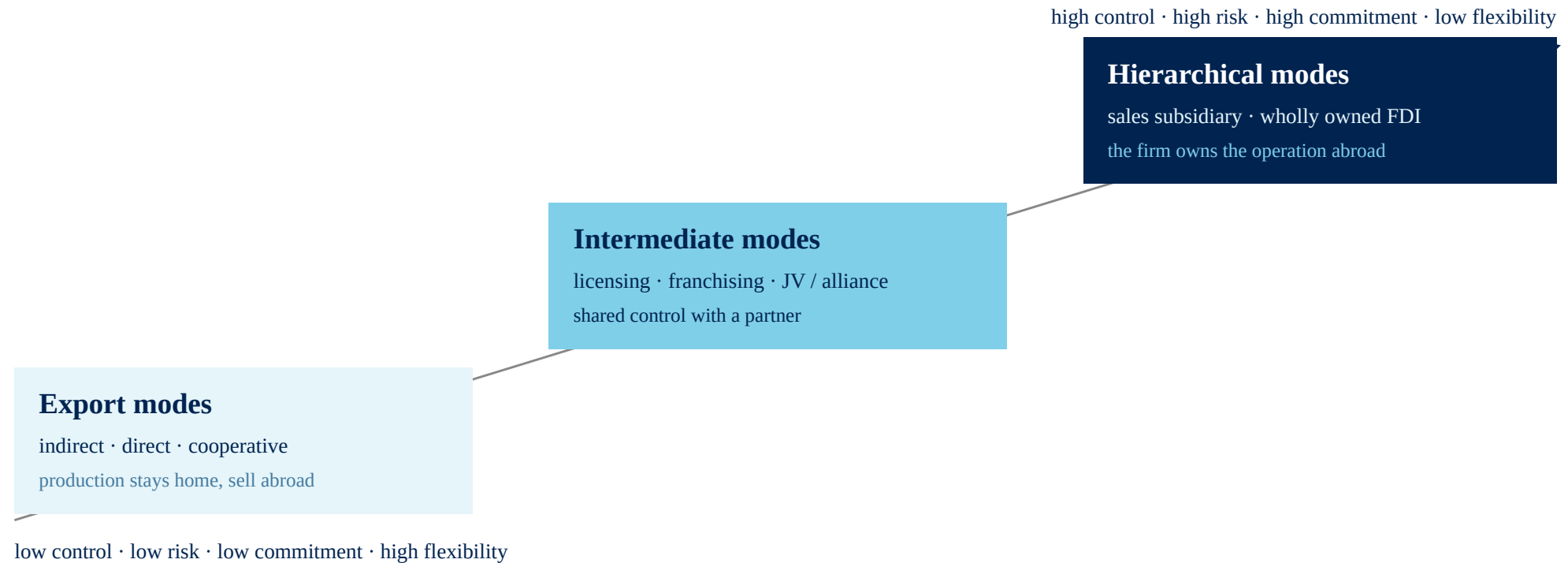
Objective: make a real market-entry call on instinct, then test it against today's framework.

- 1 Take a Viennese SME — e.g. **Manner** (wafers), **Blaguss** (travel), a craft-gin distiller or a med-tech start-up.
- 2 Pick **one foreign market** to enter — and **one way in** (export? license? franchise? joint venture? build your own operation?).
- 3 Write down **why** that mode: how much **control** do you need, how much **risk** can you carry, how much can you **invest**?
- 4 Keep your answer — at the end of the session you will re-decide with the full toolkit.

Two decisions, one strategy

- Foreign market entry is really **two linked decisions**: **WHERE** to compete (which country markets) and **HOW** to enter each one (the entry mode).
- **Which markets?** Screen and rank countries on **market attractiveness** and the firm's **competitive strength** (Hollensen's MACS logic).
- **Which mode?** Trade off **control, risk, resource commitment and flexibility** — the ladder from exporting to wholly owned operations.
- The two decisions interact: a highly attractive market where the firm is strong justifies a high-commitment mode; a risky or uncertain one argues for a low-commitment entry.

Which mode? The control–commitment ladder



As the firm climbs from export to intermediate to hierarchical modes it gains control and market presence — but takes on more risk, cost and less flexibility. Source: Hollensen, Global Marketing; Cavusgil et al., International Business.

What drives the mode choice?

- **Internal factors:** firm size and resources · international experience · the product (complex, service, IP-heavy?) · desired degree of control.
- **External factors:** market size and growth · country risk (political, legal, cultural) · trade barriers and government rules · intensity of competition.
- **Desired mode characteristics:** how much **risk-aversion**, need for **control**, and **flexibility** the firm wants.
- **Transaction-specific factors:** the risk of a partner appropriating the firm's **know-how** — high tacit-knowledge or brand value pushes toward higher-control modes.
- *No single best mode: the right entry matches firm, product, market and the firm's appetite for control and risk.*

Exporting: the usual first step

- **Exporting:** producing at home (or a third country) and selling into foreign markets — usually the firm's **first** entry strategy: low risk, low cost, flexible. Popular with SMEs.
- **Advantages:** grow sales and market share · better margins and economies of scale · diversify across markets · a low-commitment way to learn.
- **Disadvantages:** less learning about customers and rivals than FDI · needs new capabilities (contracts, logistics, finance) · exposed to **tariffs, trade barriers and exchange-rate** swings · reliance on intermediaries.
- Services are exported too — architecture, education, banking, entertainment — but many services need local presence (retailing → FDI).

Working through export intermediaries

- **Foreign distributor:** based in the market, takes **title** to the goods, resells and services them — the exporter's most common partner.
- **Manufacturer's representative / agent:** sells on commission but does **not** take title; **trading companies** handle many products and markets.
- The exporter depends on intermediaries for marketing, distribution and service — so **cultivate the relationship:** support them, respond to their needs, show commitment.
- Common disputes: **compensation, pricing, advertising support, inventory and who owns the customer** — settle them in the contract up front.

Getting paid: Incoterms and methods of payment

Payment method	How it works	Risk
Cash in advance	Buyer pays before shipment	Safest for the exporter — but hard to win buyers
Letter of credit	A bank guarantees payment once shipping documents are presented	Low risk for both — the workhorse of trade finance
Documentary collection	Bank handles documents; payment on sight or on a set date	Medium — bank handles papers, not a guarantee
Open account	Ship first, buyer pays later (e.g. 30–90 days)	Riskiest for the exporter — used with trusted buyers

Incoterms (ICC) split the cost and risk of freight, insurance and customs between buyer and seller — e.g. EXW (buyer bears almost all), FOB (seller to the ship's rail), CIF (seller pays cost, insurance, freight), DDP (seller delivers duty-paid). A letter of credit is the classic way to bridge trust across borders.

Countertrade: paying in kind

- **Countertrade:** an international deal in which all or part of the payment is made **in goods rather than cash** — a modern form of barter. Used where hard currency is scarce, costly or restricted.
- Estimated at roughly **10%—one third of world trade**, concentrated in emerging and resource economies.
- Forms: **barter** (goods for goods) · **compensation deal** (goods + cash) · **counterpurchase** (two linked contracts) · **buy-back** (paid in the output of the plant you sold).
- **Example:** PepsiCo famously sold syrup to the USSR in exchange for Stolichnaya vodka — cola paid for in vodka.

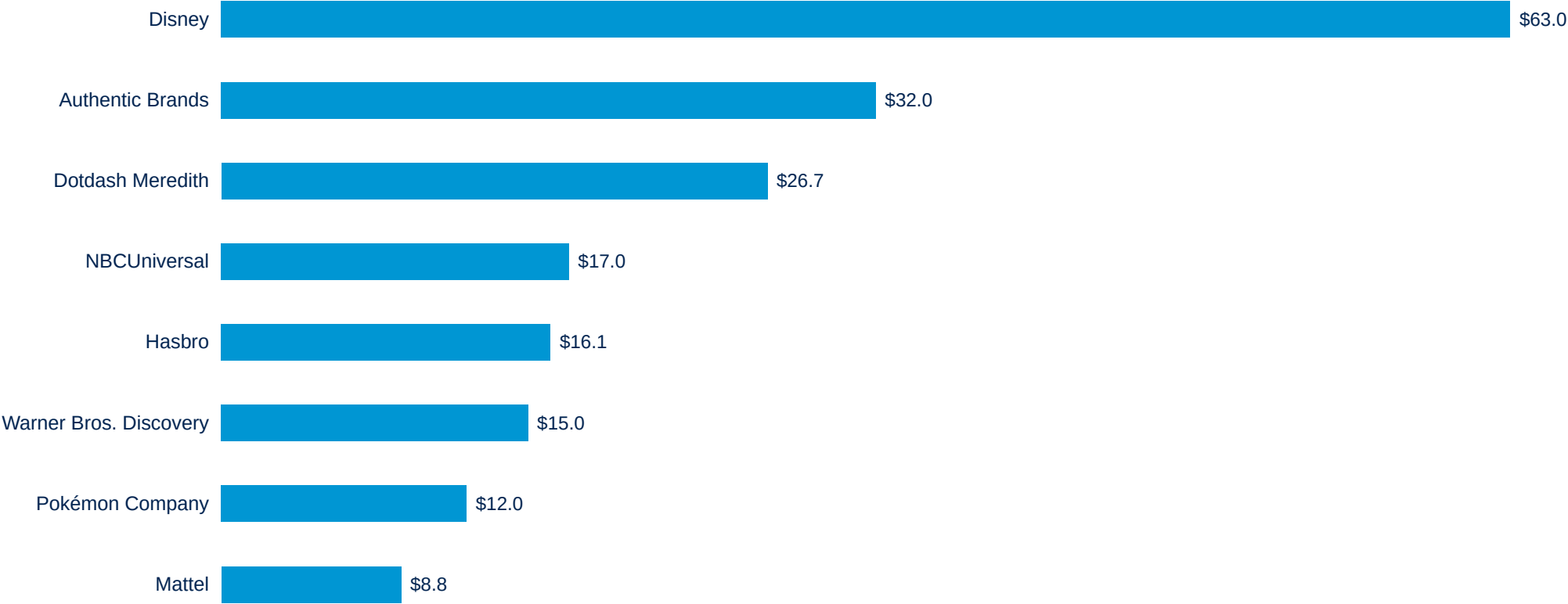
Contractual (intermediate) modes: sharing control

- **Contractual entry:** a cross-border relationship governed by a **contract**, giving the firm a **moderate** level of control and usually exchanging **intangibles** — intellectual property, technology, know-how, a business system.
- **Licensing:** the owner of IP grants another firm the right to use it for a period, for a **royalty** (typically 2–5% of gross sales) plus an upfront fee.
- **Franchising:** the firm grants another the right to use an **entire business system** — more comprehensive and longer-term than licensing.
- These modes reduce the perception of being a foreign firm, generate **steadier** earnings than FDI, and can be combined with exporting or FDI as conditions evolve.

Licensing: advantages and the key risk

- A **licensor** (owner) grants a **licensee** (user) the right to make or sell using its IP. Types: **trademark** (Disney characters on apparel), **copyright** (Harry Potter images), **know-how** (Intel's chip process).
- Worldwide retail sales of **licensed merchandise exceed US\$340 billion** a year (LIMA). Disney alone earns tens of billions in licensing.
- **Advantages for the licensor:** low investment, low involvement, low effort once set up — a cheap, fast way into a market.
- **Disadvantages:** performance depends on the licensee · **limited control** over the asset abroad · and the ever-present risk of **creating a future competitor**.
- **Example:** Anheuser-Busch's Budweiser is brewed in Japan by Kirin under licence; Nestlé's Kit Kat is made in the US by Hershey under licence.

Leading licensors by retail sales of licensed products (US\$ bn)



Retail sales of licensed products, 2024. Global licensed-product retail sales reached a record US\$369.6 bn in 2024 (+3.7%); Disney is the world's #1 licensor. Source: Licensing International, 2025 Global Licensing Industry Study; License Global.

Franchising: the business-in-a-box

- **Business-format franchising:** the franchisor transfers a **whole business method** — brand, products, processes, training and standards — to the franchisee, for fees and royalties.
- A **master franchisee** is authorized to develop and manage the entire network in a market (e.g. McDonald's master franchisees).
- **Advantages for the franchisor:** low investment · **rapid** internationalization to many markets · low effort once set up · leverages franchisees' local knowledge.
- **Disadvantages:** hard to maintain **control and consistency** across many franchisees · limited control over assets abroad · risk of creating a future competitor.
- In emerging markets, franchisors must weigh income levels, urbanization, fast-changing laws and **food/culture fit** — KFC and Pizza Hut are huge in China; menus are localized.

Leading international franchises

Franchise	Type	Outlets (approx.)	Countries
Mixue (China)	Bubble tea & ice cream	~45,000	10+
7-Eleven	Convenience stores	~84,000	19
McDonald's	Burger restaurants	~44,000	100+
Subway	Sandwich restaurants	~40,000	100+
KFC (Yum!)	Chicken restaurants	~30,000	150
Domino's	Pizza	~21,000	90+
Pizza Hut (Yum!)	Pizza	~19,000	100+

Approximate global unit counts, 2024–25. Franchising scales a brand across borders fast on other people's capital — but formats are localized (KFC in China, McAlloo Tikki in India). Note the newcomer: China's Mixue has overtaken McDonald's and Starbucks by store count. Sources: company reports; Franchise Times / Vettedbiz rankings.

Other contractual modes — and Yum!

- **Turnkey contracting:** the firm designs, finances, builds and hands over a complete facility — metros, airports, gas plants. The Petronas Twin Towers were a 7-year turnkey project.
- **Management contract:** supply the **management know-how** to run a hotel, hospital or airport for a fee (e.g. Marriott, Hilton run hotels they don't own).
- **International leasing:** rent out machinery or aircraft to foreign clients for years at a time.
- **Example — Yum! Brands:** ~53,000 outlets worldwide (KFC, Pizza Hut, Taco Bell), mostly franchised; in 2016 it spun off **Yum China**, now the country's largest restaurant company.

Joint ventures and strategic alliances

- An **international collaborative venture** pools two or more firms' resources to share cost and risk — it spans **equity joint ventures** and non-equity, **project-based** alliances.
- **Equity JV:** partners create a **new jointly-owned company** — used when no single party has all the assets; the local partner brings market access, the foreign partner technology or brand.
- **Project-based / non-equity alliance:** a narrow scope and fixed timetable, **no new legal entity** — e.g. a consortium (Airbus-style) or a cross-licensing deal.
- **Reality check:** about **half** of global collaborative ventures fail within five years — from culture clashes, unclear goals and weak governance. Success needs common goals, cultural awareness and disciplined management.

Protecting intellectual property

- Contractual modes hand your IP to a partner — so **protecting it is the whole game**. Counterfeiting and piracy of traded goods exceed **US\$2 trillion** a year (OECD/ICC estimates).
- **Key treaties:** the **Paris** and **Berne** Conventions, and the WTO's **TRIPS** agreement set minimum global IP standards — but enforcement varies widely by country.
- **Safeguards:** register core IP in your key markets · **separate value-chain steps** so no partner sees the whole process · favour hard-to-copy, leading-edge technology · choose reputable partners and write IP protection into contracts.
- **Example:** Coca-Cola licenses bottling worldwide but has **never** licensed the syrup formula — the crown-jewel IP stays in-house.

FDI and hierarchical modes: owning the operation

- **Foreign direct investment (FDI):** the firm establishes a **physical presence** abroad by acquiring productive assets — plants, subsidiaries, offices. The most advanced, costly and risky entry mode.
- **Key features:** a **substantial resource commitment** · local presence and operations · **substantial risk and uncertainty** · and the **highest control** and profit potential.
- Hollensen's **hierarchical** modes are the FDI family — from a **sales/marketing subsidiary**, through assembly, to a **wholly owned production subsidiary** or acquisition.
- Undertaken by firms from advanced **and** emerging economies — and occasionally stirs patriotic pushback (e.g. Dubai Ports, Huawei).

Why firms invest abroad: the FDI motives

Market-seeking

Reach or grow in a large/attractive market · follow key customers abroad · compete with rivals on their home turf

Resource / asset-seeking

Secure raw materials · gain knowledge, brands or technology (Whirlpool–Philips) · tap local talent and know-how

Efficiency-seeking

Cut cost via cheap labour and inputs · locate near customers · use government incentives · jump trade barriers

Strategic-asset-seeking

Acquire capabilities the firm lacks — brands, R&D, distribution — often via cross-border M&A

Dunning's four motives, as used in Cavusgil et al. — most efficiency-seeking FDI is about accessing cheaper inputs; most market-seeking FDI is about being close to demand.

Greenfield investment vs. mergers & acquisitions

Greenfield — build new

- Build a brand-new plant / subsidiary from scratch
- Full control of design, technology, location and culture
- Create new capacity and local jobs — governments love it
- Slow; must build market presence and supplier links from zero

M&A — buy existing

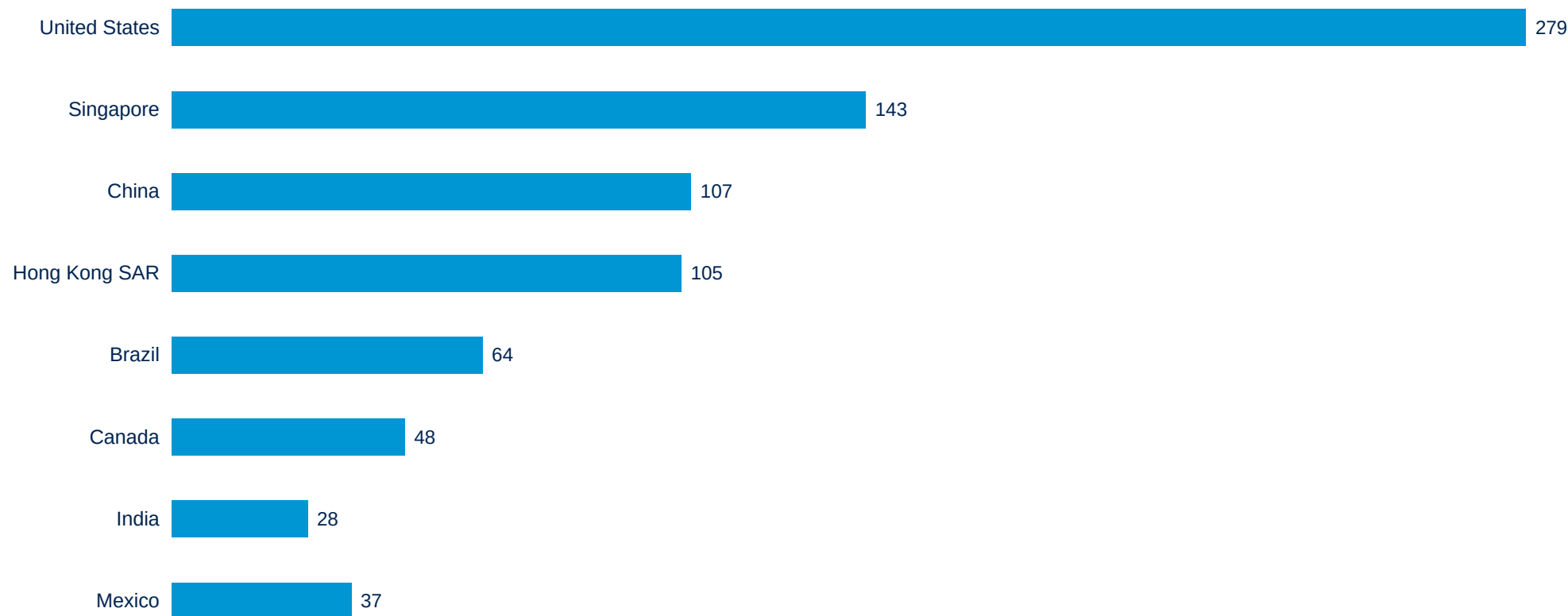
- Acquire (or merge with) an existing local company
- **Fast** market access, brands, customers and staff
- Adds no new capacity; integration and culture clashes are common
- Can trigger political and regulatory scrutiny

Cross-border M&A and greenfield each account for a large share of global FDI; M&A dominates in advanced economies, greenfield in emerging ones. Example: Lenovo bought IBM's PC unit (M&A); BMW built a greenfield plant in Spartanburg, USA.

Ownership and level of integration

- **Wholly owned direct investment:** the investor **fully owns** the foreign assets — maximum control and profit, maximum risk and commitment.
- **Equity joint venture:** partial ownership shared with a partner — less control, but shared risk and local access (bridges to the intermediate modes).
- **Horizontal FDI:** own the **same** value-chain stage abroad as at home — e.g. Toyota building cars in several countries (market-seeking).
- **Vertical FDI:** own **different** stages up- or down-stream — e.g. an oil major owning wells, refineries and filling stations (resource- and efficiency-seeking).

Leading destinations for FDI inflows, 2024 (US\$ bn)



FDI inflows, 2024. Global FDI was ~US\$1.5 tn but — stripping out volatile conduit flows — productive FDI fell for a second year. The US stays the top destination; Asian hubs dominate the rest. Figures beyond the US and China anchors are approximate. Source: UNCTAD, World Investment Report 2025.

A hard case: retailer internationalization — Walmart

- Retailers usually internationalize via **FDI and collaborative ventures** — and face steep **barriers**: consumer loyalty to local chains, culture and language, idiosyncratic laws (store hours, zoning), and the need to build **local supply**.
- **Walmart's mixed record**: **Germany** — misread the market and local competition, exited in 2006. **Mexico** — built US-style parking lots, but many shoppers had no cars. **Brazil** — aisles too narrow for the payday rush. **Argentina** — US-flag colours offended local taste.
- **What works (success factors)**: deep advance research (Carrefour spent 12 years in Taiwan) · build local logistics and sourcing · an entrepreneurial approach · and **adapt the model** (Home Depot in Mexico offers smaller packs and flexible credit).
- **The lesson**: a high-control mode does **not** guarantee success — it must be paired with genuine local responsiveness.

The other side: global sourcing

- **Global sourcing:** procuring products or services from suppliers abroad for use at home or in a third country — the import side of the value chain (also called global outsourcing or procurement).
- Two key decisions: **(1) outsource or not?** — do an activity in-house or buy it from an independent supplier; **(2) where in the world?** — configure each value-chain activity in its best location.
- Forms: **contract manufacturing** (Foxconn builds the product to spec) · **business-process outsourcing (BPO)** (payroll, IT, call centres) · **offshoring** (relocating a process or plant abroad, often to your own subsidiary).
- **Example — the iPhone:** designed in California, with components sourced from suppliers in **~43 countries** (Apple's network spans 50+), assembled mainly in China — and increasingly India and Vietnam. One product, a global sourcing map.
- **Benefits:** cost efficiency, access to talent and capacity, faster growth. **Risks:** lower-than-expected savings, quality and IP problems, exchange-rate and geopolitical exposure, and reputational risk.

Manufacturing labour cost per hour, selected countries (US\$)



Total hourly manufacturing labour cost, approximate (various 2023–24 sources — no single authoritative series exists since US BLS discontinued its comparisons). The wage gap is the engine of global sourcing — but Chinese wages have climbed sharply, narrowing it and driving reshoring/nearshoring. Sources: Conference Board, KPMG, Statista, ILO compilations.

Reshoring, nearshoring and the supply chain

- China is still a top sourcing location, but **rising wages** (average manufacturing pay more than doubled 2013–2022, now above ~US\$8/hour) have eroded its cost edge.
- **Reshoring**: bringing production back home; **nearshoring**: moving it closer — US firms shifting from China to **Mexico**, which overtook China as the top source of US imports in 2023–24. Reshoring + FDI announcements added ~**245,000 US jobs in 2024** (Reshoring Initiative).
- Drivers of the shift: rising wages, tariffs and geopolitics, long and fragile supply chains (COVID, Suez, Red Sea), and the pull of **speed and resilience** over pure cost.
- **Global supply-chain management** ties sourcing, production and distribution into one worldwide network. Logistics can be up to **40%** of total cost; firms lean on 3PL providers (DHL, UPS, FedEx, Maersk) and ICT to run it.

Moving the goods: transportation modes

Mode	Strengths	Best for
Ocean	Cheapest per tonne-km; huge capacity; containerized	Bulk, heavy, non-urgent goods — ~80% of world trade by volume
Air	Fast and reliable; low damage/theft	High-value, perishable or urgent goods — a small share of volume, large share of value
Land (rail & road)	Flexible; door-to-door; good for regional trade	Continental and last-mile movement; the new rail land-bridges Asia–Europe

Ocean transport is the backbone of international trade; air moves the value, not the volume; land links it together. The right mode balances cost, speed, reliability and the product's value-to-weight ratio.

The entry modes at a glance

Mode	Control	Risk / commitment	Speed & flexibility	Typical use
Exporting	Low	Low	High	First step; SMEs; test a market
Licensing	Low–moderate	Low	High	IP-rich firms; fast, cheap reach
Franchising	Moderate	Low–moderate	High	Replicable business systems; retail & food
Joint venture / alliance	Shared	Moderate	Moderate	Need a local partner’s assets or access
Wholly owned FDI	High	High	Low	Strategic markets; control of IP & quality

The through-line of the session: control, risk and commitment rise together as you climb the ladder — pick the lowest-commitment mode that still gives you the control the situation demands.

Apply it: choose the entry mode

IN-CLASS ACTIVITY · 15 MINUTES · SMALL GROUPS

Objective: use the full toolkit to choose and defend an entry mode — then compare it to your opening instinct.

- 1 Take one scenario: **(a)** a Styrian craft-gin maker entering Japan · **(b)** an Austrian med-tech firm entering the USA · **(c)** a Vienna coffee-house brand entering the Gulf.
- 2 Screen the market briefly (attractiveness × your strength) and pick a mode from the ladder.
- 3 Justify it on **control, risk, commitment and IP** — and name the single biggest risk of your choice.
- 4 Compare with your **opening-activity** answer: did the framework change your mind?
- 5 Two minutes per group; the class stress-tests each decision.



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